

Unit I :: Distribution of Velocities and Molecular Collisions

☞ **PHY0500304: Heat & Thermodynamics** ☞

Dr. Parag Bhattacharya
Department of Physics
Rangapara College (Autonomous)

Syllabus

Unit I: Distribution of Velocities and Molecular Collisions

Maxwell-Boltzmann Law of Distribution of Velocities in an Ideal Gas and its Experimental Verification. Mean, RMS and Most Probable Speeds. Degrees of Freedom. Law of Equipartition of Energy (No proof required). Mean Free Path. Collision Probability. Transport Phenomenon in Ideal Gases: (1) Viscosity, and (2) Thermal Conductivity. Brownian Motion (qualitative idea only).

1 Maxwell-Boltzmann distribution law

The Maxwell-Boltzmann distribution is a result of the kinetic theory of gases, which provides a simplified explanation of many fundamental gaseous properties, including pressure and diffusion. This distribution applies fundamentally to particle velocities in three dimensions, but turns out to depend only on the speed (the magnitude of the velocity) of the particles. A particle speed probability distribution indicates which speeds are more likely: a randomly chosen particle will have a speed selected randomly from the distribution, and is more likely to be within one range of speeds than another.

The kinetic theory of gases applies to the classical ideal gas, which is an idealization of real gases. In real gases, there are various effects (e.g., van der Waals interactions, vortical flow, relativistic speed limits, and quantum exchange interactions) that can make their speed distribution different from the Maxwell-Boltzmann form. However, rarefied gases at ordinary temperatures behave very nearly like an ideal gas and the Maxwell speed distribution is an excellent approximation for such gases. This is also true for ideal plasmas, which are ionized gases of sufficiently low density.

1.1 Postulates of kinetic theory of gases

1. Every mole of a gas contains about 6.023×10^{23} molecules.
2. The gas molecules may be regarded as point masses.
3. The gas molecules are in a state of continuous random motion.
4. In the absence of an external force field, the molecules are distributed uniformly in the container, i.e. an ideal gas behaves as an isotropic medium.
5. The molecules of a gas experience force only during collisions.
6. The molecules of a gas behave as rigid, perfectly elastic hard spheres.
7. The duration of collisions is negligible compared to the time interval between collisions.
8. There is a spread of molecular speeds from zero to infinity.
9. The gravitational potential energy has negligible effect on the motion of the gas molecules.

1.2 Fundamental assumptions

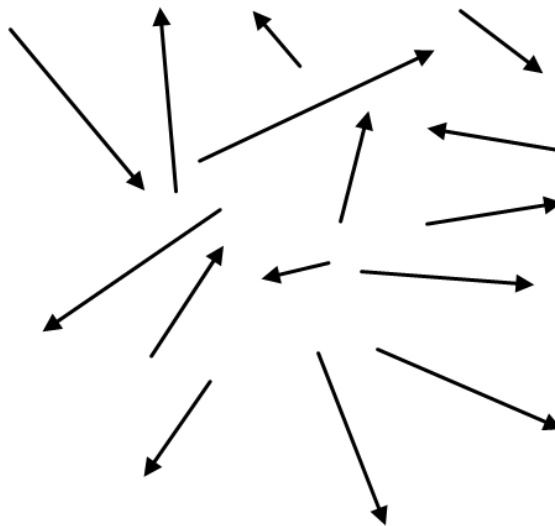
In the derivation of the Maxwell-Boltzmann distribution, we make the following basic assumptions:

1. In the equilibrium state, the molecules have complete randomness of direction and velocity.
2. There is no mass motion or convection current in the body of the gas.

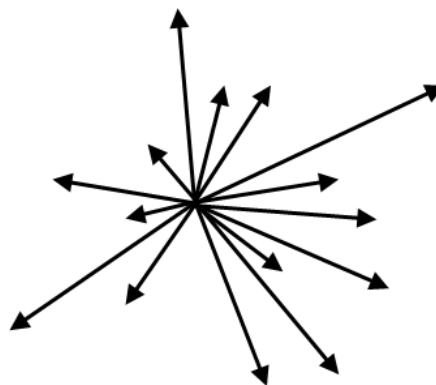
3. The probability of a molecule having an x -velocity component at any point of time is independent of its y - and z -velocity components, and so on.
4. The probability that a molecule selected at random has velocity component in a given range is a function only of the magnitude of the velocity component and the width of the interval.
5. The gas molecules have no rotational or vibrational energies.

1.3 Velocity space

Consider a gas of N molecules enclosed in a vessel, of arbitrary shape, and moving randomly. The velocity vectors are all randomly oriented in all possible directions.



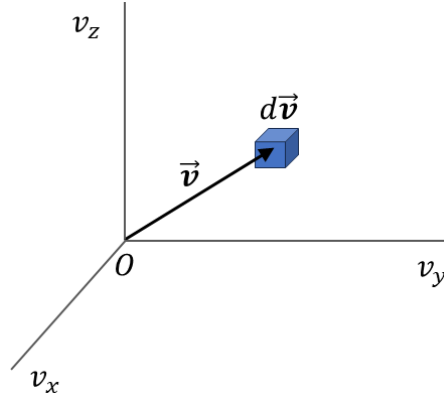
Now we transport each vector parallel to itself to a common origin.



If we now fix the velocity axes v_x , v_y and v_z with respect to a common origin O (that corresponds to particles at rest), every molecular velocity can be represented in this space, which is known as the *velocity space*.

1.4 Derivation of Maxwell-Boltzmann distribution law

Let us now consider an infinitesimal volume element $d\vec{v}$ in this velocity space. The number of velocity vectors that terminate inside $d\vec{v}$ gives us the average number of molecules whose velocities lie between $\vec{v}$ and $\vec{v} + d\vec{v}$.



We have, for any velocity $\vec{v}$, the corresponding speed to be

$$v^2 = v_x^2 + v_y^2 + v_z^2 \quad (1)$$

Let dN_{v_x} be the number of molecules having velocity components in the range v_x and $v_x + dv_x$. Then from assumption #4, we have

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{dN_{v_x}}{N} &= f(v_x) dv_x \\ \text{or, } dN_{v_x} &= N f(v_x) dv_x \end{aligned} \quad (2)$$

In equation (2), $f(v_x)$ is an unknown function that we have to determine.

Also, the probability of finding a molecule with x -velocity component in the range v_x and $v_x + dv_x$ is

$$p_x = \frac{dN_{v_x}}{N} = f(v_x) dv_x \quad (3)$$

Likewise, from assumption #3, we have

$$p_y = f(v_y) dv_y \quad (4)$$

$$p_z = f(v_z) dv_z \quad (5)$$

Then from the law of compound probabilities, the probability of finding a molecule having velocity components simultaneously in the ranges $[v_x, v_x + dv_x]$, $[v_y, v_y + dv_y]$ and $[v_z, v_z + dv_z]$ is

$$\frac{d^3 N_{v_x v_y v_z}}{N} = p_x p_y p_z = f(v_x) f(v_y) f(v_z) dv_x dv_y dv_z \quad (6)$$

Hence, the number density of velocity points is

$$\rho = \frac{d^3 N_{v_x v_y v_z}}{dv_x dv_y dv_z} = N f(v_x) f(v_y) f(v_z) \quad (7)$$

It follows from assumption #1 that the velocity space has been assumed to be isotropic, and so this implies that ρ is independent of the direction of $\vec{v}$ and only depends on v^2 , i.e

$$\begin{aligned}\rho &\propto J(v^2) \\ \Rightarrow f(v_x)f(v_y)f(v_z) &= J(v^2)\end{aligned}\quad (8)$$

where J is some other function.

For a fixed value of v^2 , $J(v^2)$ is constant and so

$$\begin{aligned}d[J(v^2)] &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow d[f(v_x)f(v_y)f(v_z)] &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow \frac{\partial f(v_x)}{\partial v_x} dv_x f(v_y)f(v_z) + f(v_x) \frac{\partial f(v_y)}{\partial v_y} dv_y f(v_z) + f(v_x)f(v_y) \frac{\partial f(v_z)}{\partial v_z} dv_z &= 0\end{aligned}\quad (9)$$

Dividing equation (9) by $f(v_x)f(v_y)f(v_z)$, we obtain

$$\frac{1}{f(v_x)} \frac{\partial f(v_x)}{\partial v_x} dv_x + \frac{1}{f(v_y)} \frac{\partial f(v_y)}{\partial v_y} dv_y + \frac{1}{f(v_z)} \frac{\partial f(v_z)}{\partial v_z} dv_z = 0 \quad (10)$$

Also, for a fixed value of v^2 , we have

$$\begin{aligned}d[v^2] &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow d[v_x^2 + v_y^2 + v_z^2] &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow v_x dv_x + v_y dv_y + v_z dv_z &= 0\end{aligned}\quad (11)$$

Suppose that B is some unknown constant. Then multiplying equation (11) with $2B$ and adding to equation (10) gives

$$\left[\frac{1}{f(v_x)} \frac{\partial f(v_x)}{\partial v_x} + 2B v_x \right] dv_x + \left[\frac{1}{f(v_y)} \frac{\partial f(v_y)}{\partial v_y} + 2B v_y \right] dv_y + \left[\frac{1}{f(v_z)} \frac{\partial f(v_z)}{\partial v_z} + 2B v_z \right] dv_z = 0 \quad (12)$$

Even though v is held constant, v_x , v_y , v_z may individually change and yet satisfy equation (1). In equation (12), the first term within brackets depends only on v_x , the second term on v_y and the third term on v_z .

Because dv_x , dv_y , dv_z are arbitrary, the only way for equation (12) to hold good is if all three terms vanish identically.

Therefore, for the v_x term, we would have

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{1}{f(v_x)} \frac{\partial f(v_x)}{\partial v_x} + 2B v_x &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow \frac{\partial f(v_x)}{\partial v_x} &= -2B v_x f(v_x) \\ \Rightarrow \frac{\partial f(v_x)}{f(v_x)} &= -2B v_x dv_x \\ \Rightarrow \int \frac{df}{f} &= -2B \int v_x dv_x \\ \Rightarrow \ln f(v_x) &= -2B \frac{v_x^2}{2} + \ln A\end{aligned}$$

where $\ln A$ is the constant of integration. From the above we obtain

$$\begin{aligned}
 \ln f(v_x) - \ln A &= -B v_x^2 \\
 \Rightarrow \ln \frac{f(v_x)}{A} &= -B v_x^2 \\
 \Rightarrow \frac{f(v_x)}{A} &= e^{-B v_x^2} \\
 \Rightarrow f(v_x) &= A e^{-B v_x^2}
 \end{aligned} \tag{13}$$

Likewise, from the v_y and v_z terms, we obtain

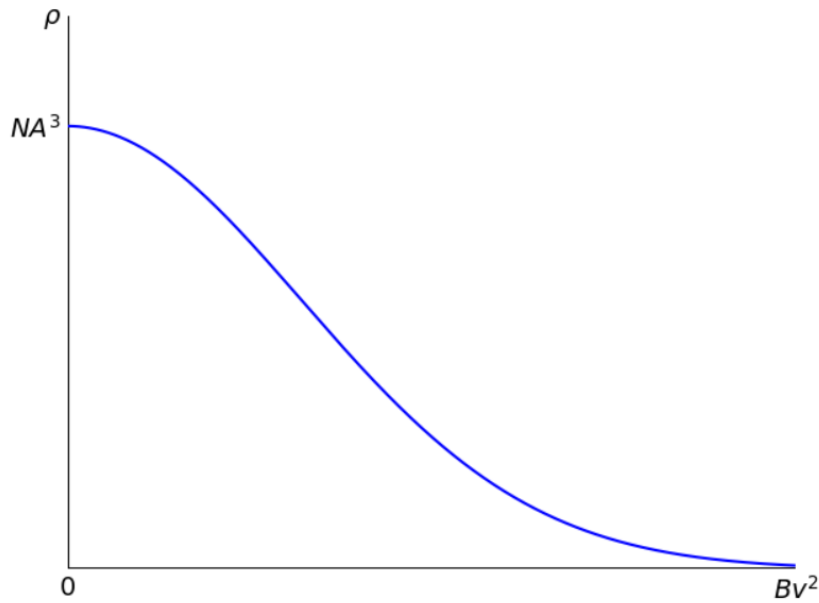
$$f(v_y) = A e^{-B v_y^2} \tag{14}$$

$$f(v_z) = A e^{-B v_z^2} \tag{15}$$

Using equations (13), (14) and (15) in equation (7) gives us

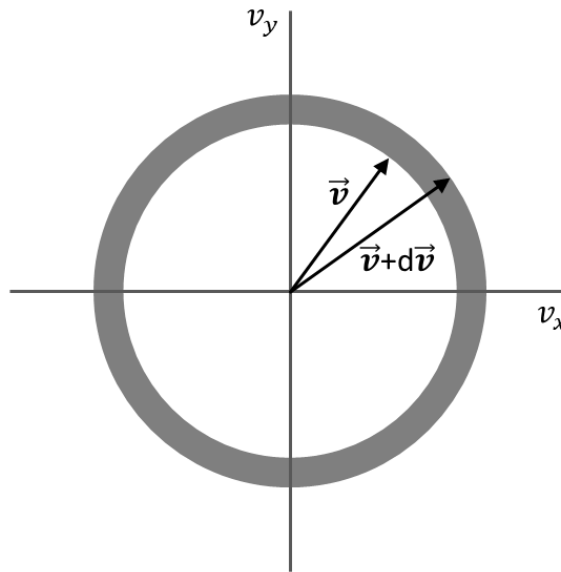
$$\begin{aligned}
 \rho &= N \left(A e^{-B v_x^2} \right) \left(A e^{-B v_y^2} \right) \left(A e^{-B v_z^2} \right) \\
 &= N A^3 e^{-B(v_x^2 + v_y^2 + v_z^2)} \\
 \Rightarrow \boxed{\rho(v) = N A^3 e^{-B v^2}}
 \end{aligned} \tag{16}$$

Equation (16) is known as *Maxwell's velocity density distribution function*, where ρ varies with molecular speeds v as shown in the plot below:



1.4.1 Molecular distribution of speeds

Consider a spherical shell of radius v and thickness dv in the velocity space. Then all points within this shell correspond to molecules with speeds in the range v and $v + dv$. In the spherical



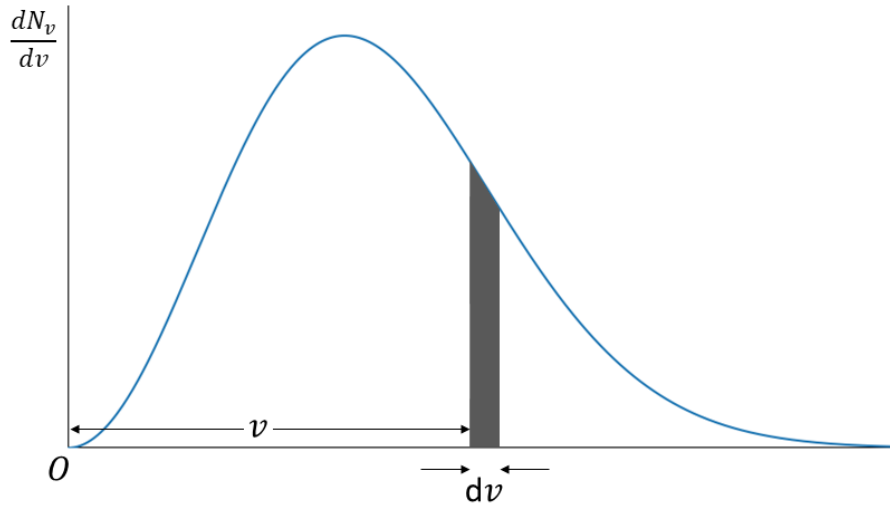
polar coordinates, the volume of an arbitrary volume element is

$$dv_x dv_y dv_z = v^2 \sin \theta d\theta d\phi dv \quad (1)$$

The number of molecules with speeds in the range v and $v + dv$ is obtained by integrating ρ over this shell as

$$\begin{aligned} dN_v &= d^3 N_{v_x v_y v_z} \\ &= \int_{\theta=0}^{\pi} \int_{\phi=0}^{2\pi} N A^3 e^{-Bv^2} v^2 \sin \theta d\theta d\phi dv \\ &= N A^3 e^{-Bv^2} v^2 dv \int_0^{\pi} \sin \theta d\theta \int_0^{2\pi} d\phi \\ &= N A^3 e^{-Bv^2} v^2 dv [\cos 0 - \cos \pi] 2\pi \\ &= N A^3 e^{-Bv^2} v^2 dv \times 2 \times 2\pi \\ \Rightarrow dN_v &= 4\pi N A^3 v^2 e^{-Bv^2} dv \\ \Rightarrow \boxed{\frac{dN_v}{dv} &= 4\pi N A^3 v^2 e^{-Bv^2}} \quad (2) \end{aligned}$$

Equation (2) gives us the *Maxwellian distribution function of molecular speeds*.



In the plot of $\frac{dN_v}{dv}$ with respect to v , the area of a vertical shaded strip under the graph gives the number of molecules which have speeds between v and $v + dv$. Hence, the total area under the entire curve gives us the total number of molecules N .

1.4.2 Determination of the constants

The total number of molecules N can be obtained by integrating dN_v over all speeds, i.e.

$$N = \int dN_v = 4\pi N A^3 \int_0^{\infty} v^2 e^{-Bv^2} dv \quad (1)$$

We now use the following standard integral:

$$\int_0^{\infty} e^{-ax^2} x^n dx = \frac{1}{2a^{(n+1)/2}} \Gamma\left(\frac{n+1}{2}\right) \quad (2)$$

where the gamma function is defined as

$$\Gamma(x) = \int_0^{\infty} t^{x-1} e^{-t} dt$$

Some important values of $\Gamma(x)$ are given below:

x	$\Gamma(x)$
1/2	$\sqrt{\pi}$
1	1
3/2	$\sqrt{\pi}/2$
2	1

The gamma function also satisfies the recurrence relation: $\Gamma(n+1) = n\Gamma(n)$

In equation (2), setting $x \rightarrow v$, $\alpha \rightarrow B$ and $n = 2$ gives us

$$\begin{aligned} \int_0^{\infty} e^{-Bv^2} v^2 dv &= \frac{1}{2B^{(2+1)/2}} \Gamma\left(\frac{2+1}{2}\right) \\ &= \frac{1}{2B^{3/2}} \Gamma\left(\frac{3}{2}\right) \\ \Rightarrow \int_0^{\infty} v^2 e^{-Bv^2} dv &= \frac{\sqrt{\pi}}{4B^{3/2}} \end{aligned} \quad (3)$$

Inserting equation (3) in equation (1), we get

$$\begin{aligned} \mathcal{N} &= 4\pi N A^3 \times \frac{\sqrt{\pi}}{4B^{3/2}} \\ \Rightarrow B^{3/2} &= \sqrt{\pi^3} A^3 \\ \Rightarrow A^3 &= \frac{B^{3/2}}{\sqrt{\pi^3}} = \frac{B^{3/2}}{\pi^{3/2}} = \left(\sqrt{\frac{B}{\pi}}\right)^3 \\ \Rightarrow A &= \sqrt{\frac{B}{\pi}} \end{aligned} \quad (4)$$

However, equation (4) only gives us the constant A in terms of another constant B . We can find B using the law of equipartition of energy of a gas.

The average value of v^2 is obtained as

$$\langle v^2 \rangle = \frac{\int_0^{\infty} v^2 dN_v}{\int_0^{\infty} dN_v} \quad (5)$$

Now, we have

$$\begin{aligned} \int_0^{\infty} v^2 dN_v &= 4\pi N A^3 \int_0^{\infty} v^4 e^{-Bv^2} dv \\ &= 4\pi N A^3 \frac{\Gamma(5/2)}{2B^{5/2}} \quad [\text{using the standard integral}] \\ \Rightarrow \int_0^{\infty} v^2 dN_v &= \frac{2\pi N A^3}{B^{5/2}} \Gamma\left(\frac{5}{2}\right) \end{aligned}$$

Also, we have

$$\int_0^{\infty} dN_v = 4\pi N A^3 \int_0^{\infty} v^2 e^{-Bv^2} dv = \frac{2\pi N A^3}{B^{3/2}} \Gamma\left(\frac{3}{2}\right)$$

Using the above two integrals in equation (5), we obtain

$$\begin{aligned}
 \langle v^2 \rangle &= \frac{2\pi N A^3 \Gamma(5/2)}{B^{5/2}} \cdot \frac{B^{3/2}}{2\pi N A^3 \Gamma(3/2)} \\
 &= \frac{B^{3/2}}{B^{5/2}} \cdot \frac{\Gamma(5/2)}{\Gamma(3/2)} \\
 &= \frac{B^{3/2}}{B^{5/2}} \cdot \frac{3/2 \Gamma(3/2)}{\Gamma(3/2)} \\
 &= \frac{3}{2} B^{3/2-5/2} = \frac{3}{2} B^{-1} \\
 \Rightarrow \langle v^2 \rangle &= \frac{3}{2B}
 \end{aligned} \tag{6}$$

Hence, the average kinetic energy of the gas molecules becomes

$$\begin{aligned}
 \langle K \rangle &= \frac{1}{2} m \langle v^2 \rangle = \frac{1}{2} m \times \frac{3}{2B} \\
 \Rightarrow \langle K \rangle &= \frac{3m}{4B}
 \end{aligned} \tag{7}$$

However, from the law of equipartition of energy of a gas, the average kinetic energy of the gas molecules at temperature T is

$$\langle K \rangle = \frac{3}{2} k_B T \tag{8}$$

where $k_B = 1.381 \times 10^{-23} \text{ J K}^{-1}$ is the Boltzmann constant.

Comparing equations (7) and (8) gives us

$$\begin{aligned}
 \frac{3m}{4B} &= \frac{3}{2} k_B T \\
 \Rightarrow \frac{3m}{4B} &= \frac{3}{2} k_B T \\
 \Rightarrow B &= \frac{m}{2k_B T}
 \end{aligned} \tag{9}$$

Inserting equation (9) in equation (4) gives us the value of the constant A :

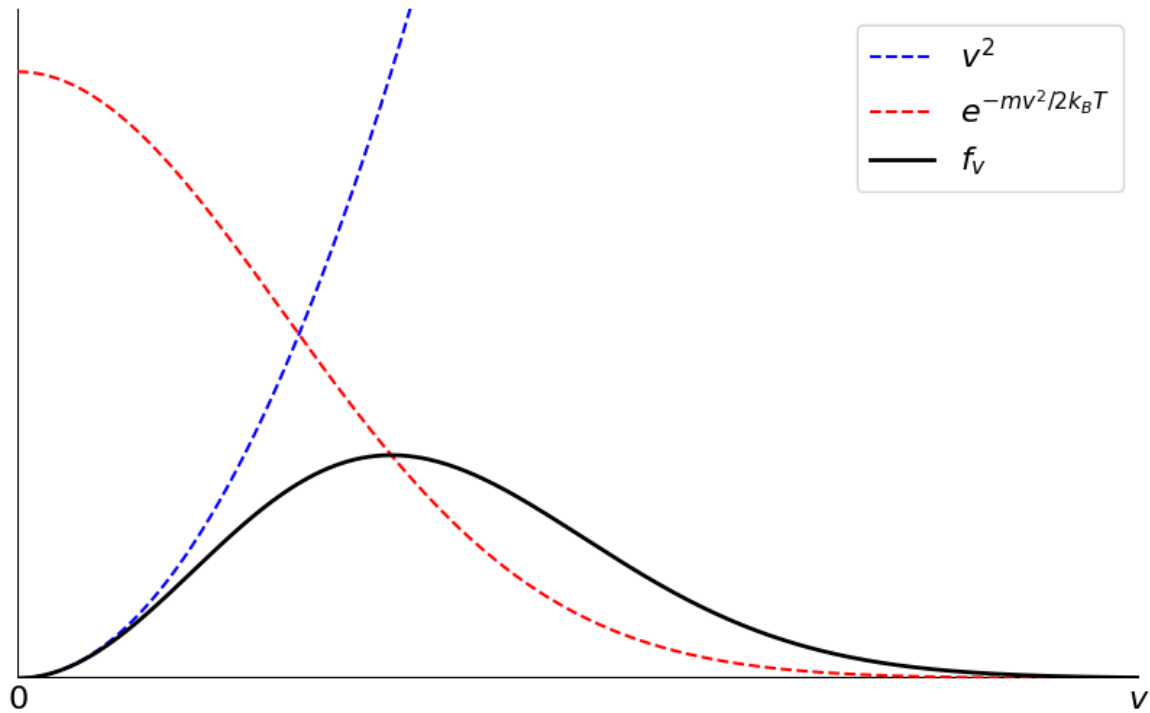
$$\begin{aligned}
 A &= \sqrt{\frac{B}{\pi}} \\
 \Rightarrow A &= \sqrt{\frac{m}{2\pi k_B T}}
 \end{aligned} \tag{10}$$

Finally, substituting for the constants A and B using equations (10) and (9) respectively in the Maxwellian distribution function for molecular speeds, we get

$$\begin{aligned}
 dN_v &= 4\pi N \left(\frac{m}{2\pi k_B T} \right)^{3/2} v^2 e^{-mv^2/2k_B T} dv \\
 \Rightarrow f_v &= \frac{dN_v}{N dv} = 4\pi \left(\frac{m}{2\pi k_B T} \right)^{3/2} v^2 e^{-mv^2/2k_B T}
 \end{aligned} \tag{11}$$

The *Maxwellian density function* f_v , from equation (11), gives us the probability per unit molecular speed of finding a molecule with speed between v and $v + dv$. This function has the following features:

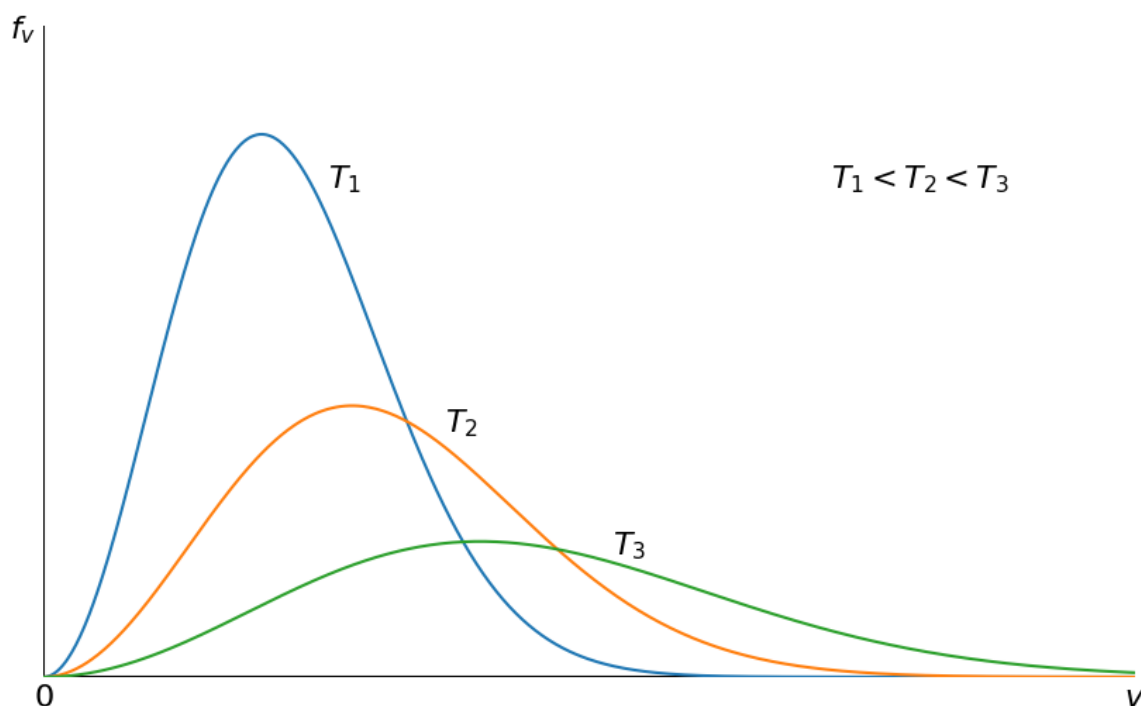
1. $f_v = 0$ for $v = 0$ (due to v^2) and $f_v \rightarrow 0$ for $v \rightarrow \infty$ (due to $e^{-mv^2/2k_B T}$).
2. For small molecular speeds, the v^2 factor dominates and f_v increases quadratically.
3. As the speed increases, the $e^{-mv^2/2k_B T}$ factor begins to dominate and the distribution starts decaying exponentially after attaining a maximum value.



4. Because f_v is a probability density function, at all T the following condition must hold good:

$$\int_0^{\infty} f_v dv = 1$$

5. As the temperature T increases, more and more molecules gain kinetic energy and so the peak shifts towards higher molecular speeds. But the total number of molecules remains constant, and so to keep the corresponding area under the curve constant, curve becomes progressively flatter with increasing T .



Exercises

1. Calculate the probability that the speed of an O_2 molecule will lie between 100 m/s and 101 m/s at 200 K. The mass of an O_2 molecule is 32 u. Take $k_B = 1.381 \times 10^{-23} \text{ J K}^{-1}$ and $N_A = 6.023 \times 10^{26} \text{ kmol}^{-1}$.
2. A gas composed of 10^6 carbon atoms has a Maxwellian velocity distribution at $T = 300 \text{ K}$. Determine the number of atoms having velocities between
 - (a) 100 ms^{-1} and 101 ms^{-1}
 - (b) 300 ms^{-1} and 301 ms^{-1}
 - (c) 1500 ms^{-1} and 1501 ms^{-1}

2 Molecular speeds

2.1 Average or mean speed

The average speed of the gas is defined as

$$v_{\text{avg}} = \langle v \rangle = \frac{1}{N} \int_0^{\infty} v \, dN_v$$

Substituting for dN_v from the Maxwellian density function, we have

$$\begin{aligned} v_{\text{avg}} &= \frac{1}{N} \times 4\pi N \left(\frac{m}{2\pi k_B T} \right)^{3/2} \underbrace{\int_0^{\infty} v^3 e^{-mv^2/2k_B T} dv}_1 \\ &= \frac{1}{N} \times 4\pi N \left(\frac{m}{2\pi k_B T} \right)^{3/2} \frac{1}{2(m/2k_B T)^2} \\ &= 2\pi \left(\frac{m}{2\pi k_B T} \right)^{3/2} \left(\frac{2k_B T}{m} \right)^2 \\ &= \frac{2\pi^{1-3/2} m^{3/2-2}}{2^{3/2-2} k_B^{3/2-2} T^{3/2-2}} = \frac{2^{3/2} k_B^{1/2} T^{1/2}}{\pi^{1/2} m^{1/2}} \\ &= \left(\frac{2^3 k_B T}{\pi m} \right)^{1/2} \\ \Rightarrow v_{\text{avg}} &= \sqrt{\frac{8k_B T}{\pi m}} \end{aligned}$$

2.2 Root mean squared (RMS) speed

The root mean squared (RMS) speed is defined as

$$v_{\text{rms}} = \sqrt{\langle v^2 \rangle}$$

Now, we already have that

$$\langle v^2 \rangle = \frac{3}{2B} \quad \text{and} \quad B = \frac{m}{2k_B T}$$

The above give us

$$\langle v^2 \rangle = \frac{3}{2} \times \frac{2k_B T}{m} = \frac{3k_B T}{m}$$

Therefore the RMS speed is

$$v_{\text{rms}} = \sqrt{\frac{3k_B T}{m}}$$

2.3 Most probable speed

The most probable speed v_p is defined as the speed at which the probability of finding a molecule is maximum.

- This is obtained by finding the root of the equation $\frac{df_v}{dv} = 0$.

We have

$$f_v = 4\pi \left(\frac{m}{2\pi k_B T} \right)^{3/2} v^2 e^{-mv^2/2k_B T} \quad (1)$$

Differentiating equation (1) with respect to v and equating to 0 gives $v = v_p$, we have

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{df_v}{dv} &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow 4\pi \left(\frac{m}{2\pi k_B T} \right)^{3/2} \frac{d}{dv} [v^2 e^{-mv^2/2k_B T}] &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow \frac{d}{dv} [v^2 e^{-mv^2/2k_B T}] &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow 2v_p e^{-mv_p^2/2k_B T} + v_p^2 \left(-\frac{m}{k_B T} \right) 2v_p e^{-mv_p^2/2k_B T} &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow 2v_p e^{-mv_p^2/2k_B T} \left[1 - \frac{mv_p^2}{k_B T} \right] &= 0 \end{aligned}$$

On the LHS of the above, the factor $e^{-mv_p^2/2k_B T}$ cannot be zero for any finite value of v . Hence we must have

$$\begin{aligned} 1 - \frac{mv_p^2}{k_B T} &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow \frac{mv_p^2}{k_B T} &= 1 \\ \Rightarrow v_p^2 &= \frac{k_B T}{m} \\ \Rightarrow v_p &= \sqrt{\frac{k_B T}{m}} \end{aligned}$$

Summary

The three molecular speeds are as follows:

$$v_{\text{avg}} = \sqrt{\frac{8k_B T}{\pi m}}, \quad v_{\text{rms}} = \sqrt{\frac{3k_B T}{m}}, \quad v_p = \sqrt{\frac{k_B T}{m}}$$

This gives their ratios to be

$$v_{\text{avg}} : v_{\text{rms}} : v_p = \sqrt{\frac{8}{\pi}} : \sqrt{3} : \sqrt{2} \approx 1.6 : 1.7 : 1.4$$

The above shows that

$$v_p < v_{\text{avg}} < v_{\text{rms}}$$

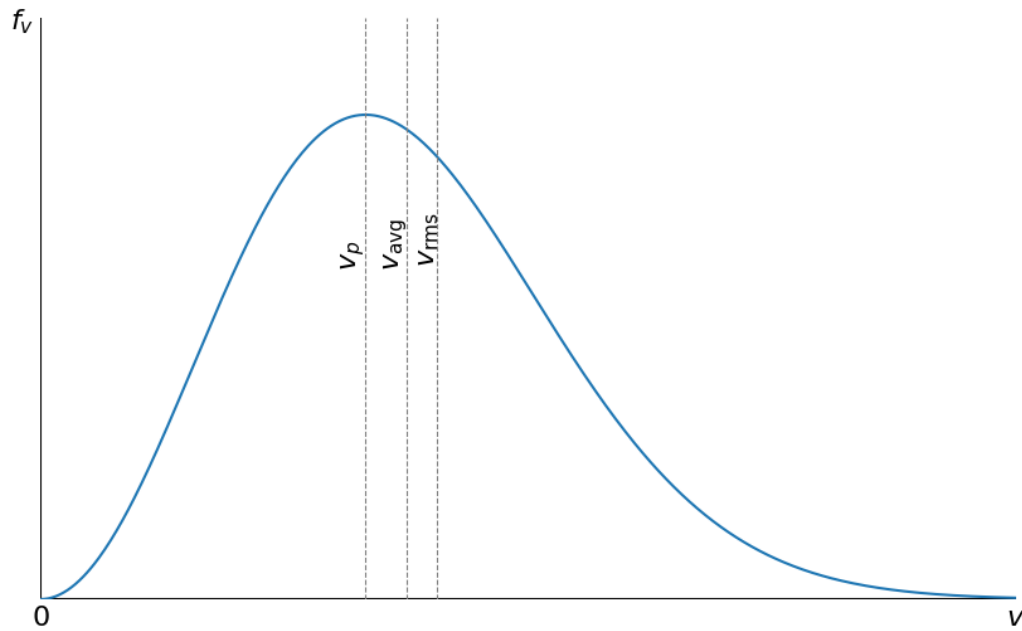


Table 1: Table showing values of v_{avg} , v_{rms} and v_p for different gases at STP

Gas	$v_{\text{avg}} (\text{m s}^{-1})$	$v_{\text{rms}} (\text{m s}^{-1})$	$v_p (\text{m s}^{-1})$
H ₂	1695	1838	1501
H ₂ O	567	615	502
N ₂	455	493	403
Air	447	485	396
O ₂	425	461	376
CO ₂	362	393	321

Exercises

- For a Maxwellian gas, show that $\langle v \rangle \left\langle \frac{1}{v} \right\rangle = \frac{4}{\pi}$.
- Calculate the most probable speed, average speed and root mean square speed for O₂ molecules at 300 K using the following data:
 $m(\text{O}_2) = 5.31 \times 10^{-26} \text{ kg}$ and $k_B = 1.38 \times 10^{-23} \text{ J K}^{-1}$
- Calculate the fraction of molecules of a gas within 1% of the most probable speed at STP. Will this fraction remain the same at all temperatures?
- Calculate the temperature at which
 - Root mean square speed of O₂ molecules exceeds their most probable speed by 150 m s⁻¹.
 - The molecular velocity distribution function for O₂ peaks for 400 m s⁻¹.

3 Energy distribution of a Maxwellian gas

In order to derive the distribution of energies of a Maxwellian gas, the following assumptions are made:

1. The energy of a Maxwellian gas is almost entirely due to the kinetic energy, i.e. $E = K$.
2. The number of molecules with kinetic energy in the range E and $E + dE$ is the same as the number of molecules with speeds in the range v and $v + dv$.

We know that for a molecule with mass m and moving with a speed v , its kinetic energy is

$$E = \frac{1}{2} m v^2$$

$$\Rightarrow v^2 = \frac{2E}{m} \quad (1)$$

$$\Rightarrow v = \sqrt{\frac{2E}{m}} \quad (2)$$

Taking the differential of equation (1), we have

$$2v dv = \frac{2 dE}{m}$$

$$\Rightarrow dE = m v dv$$

$$= m \sqrt{\frac{2E}{m}} dv \quad [\text{using eqn. (2)}]$$

$$\Rightarrow dE = \sqrt{2mE} dv \quad (3)$$

Now, from assumption #2, we have

$$dN_E = dN_v$$

$$\Rightarrow dN_E = 4\pi N \left(\frac{m}{2\pi k_B T} \right)^{3/2} v^2 \exp \left[-\frac{m v^2}{2k_B T} \right] dv$$

$$= 4\pi N \left(\frac{m}{2\pi k_B T} \right)^{3/2} \underbrace{\left(\frac{2E}{m} \right)}_{\text{from eqn. (1)}} \exp \left[-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right] \underbrace{\left(\frac{dE}{\sqrt{2mE}} \right)}_{\substack{\text{from eqn. (3)} \\ \because E = \frac{m v^2}{2}}} dv$$

$$= 4\pi N \frac{m^{3/2} 2E m^{-1}}{2\sqrt{2}\pi^{3/2} (k_B T)^{3/2}} \cdot \frac{1}{\sqrt{2} m^{1/2} E^{1/2}} \exp \left[-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right] dE$$

$$= \frac{2\pi^{1-3/2} N m^{3/2-1-1/2} E^{1-1/2}}{(k_B T)^{3/2}} \exp \left[-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right] dE$$

$$= \frac{2N \pi^{-1/2} E^{1/2}}{(k_B T)^{3/2}} \exp \left[-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right] dE$$

$$\Rightarrow dN_E = 2N \left(\frac{E}{\pi} \right)^{1/2} \left(\frac{1}{k_B T} \right)^{3/2} \exp \left[-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right] dE \quad (4)$$

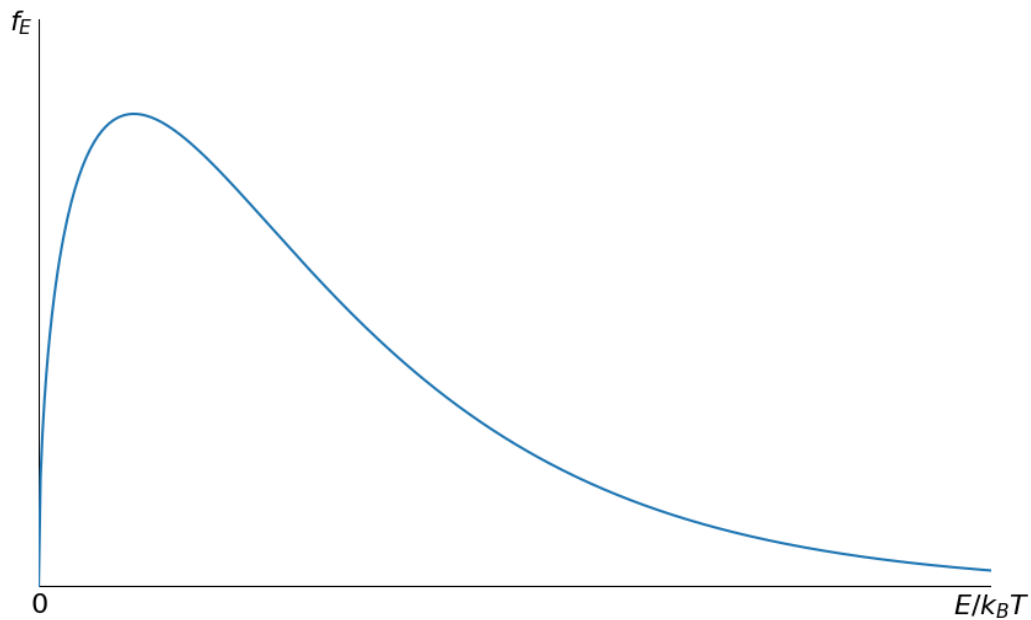
Equation (4) gives us the number of molecules with energies between E and $E + dE$.

Further, from equation (4), we find the probability of finding a molecule with energies between E and $E + dE$ to be

$$dP_E = \frac{dN_E}{N} = 2 \left(\frac{E}{\pi} \right)^{1/2} \left(\frac{1}{k_B T} \right)^{3/2} \exp \left[-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right] dE \quad (5)$$

Finally, from equation (5), we obtain the probability density function for molecular energies to be

$$f_E = \frac{dP_E}{dE} = \frac{dN_E}{N dE} = 2 \left(\frac{E}{\pi} \right)^{1/2} \left(\frac{1}{k_B T} \right)^{3/2} \exp \left[-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right] \quad (6)$$



4 Molecular energies

4.1 Average energy

The average kinetic energy of a molecule is given as

$$\begin{aligned}
 \epsilon_{\text{avg}} = \langle E \rangle &= \frac{1}{N} \int_0^{\infty} E \, dN_E \\
 &= \frac{1}{N} \times 2N \frac{1}{\sqrt{\pi}} \left(\frac{1}{k_B T} \right)^{3/2} \int_0^{\infty} E^{3/2} \exp\left[-\frac{E}{k_B T}\right] dE \\
 &= \frac{2}{\sqrt{\pi} (k_B T)^{3/2}} \int_0^{\infty} E^{3/2} \exp\left[-\frac{E}{k_B T}\right] dE
 \end{aligned}$$

In order to evaluate the integral on the RHS above, we make the substitution:

$$\begin{aligned}
 x &= \frac{E}{k_B T} \\
 \Rightarrow E &= (k_B T)x
 \end{aligned}$$

Also we have

$$\begin{aligned}
 dx &= \frac{dE}{k_B T} \\
 \Rightarrow dE &= k_B T \, dx
 \end{aligned}$$

Then we can re-write the integral as

$$\begin{aligned}
 \int_0^{\infty} E^{3/2} \exp\left[-\frac{E}{k_B T}\right] dE &= \int_0^{\infty} (k_B T)^{3/2} x^{3/2} e^{-x} k_B T \, dx \\
 &= (k_B T)^{3/2} (k_B T) \underbrace{\int_0^{\infty} x^{3/2} e^{-x} \, dx}_{=\Gamma\left(\frac{5}{2}\right)} \\
 &= (k_B T)^{3/2} (k_B T) \Gamma\left(\frac{5}{2}\right) \\
 \Rightarrow \int_0^{\infty} E^{3/2} \exp\left[-\frac{E}{k_B T}\right] dE &= (k_B T)^{3/2} (k_B T) \frac{3\sqrt{\pi}}{4}
 \end{aligned}$$

This gives us

$$\begin{aligned}
 \epsilon_{\text{avg}} &= \frac{2}{\sqrt{\pi} (k_B T)^{3/2}} (k_B T)^{3/2} (k_B T) \frac{3\sqrt{\pi}}{4} \\
 \Rightarrow \epsilon_{\text{avg}} &= \frac{3}{2} k_B T
 \end{aligned}$$

In general, for molecules with f degrees of freedom, the average energy is

$$\epsilon_{\text{avg}} = \frac{f}{2} k_B T$$

4.2 Most probable energy

To obtain the most probable energy ϵ_p , we need to find the energy such that $\frac{df_E}{dE} = 0$.

Therefore,

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{df_E}{dE} &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow \frac{d}{dE} \left[2 \left(\frac{E}{\pi} \right)^{1/2} \left(\frac{1}{k_B T} \right)^{3/2} \exp \left(-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right) \right] &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow \frac{2}{\sqrt{\pi} (k_B T)^{3/2}} \frac{d}{dE} \left[E^{1/2} \exp \left(-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right) \right] &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow \frac{d}{dE} \left[E^{1/2} \exp \left(-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right) \right] &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow \frac{1}{2\epsilon_p^{1/2}} \exp \left(-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right) + \epsilon_p^{1/2} \left(-\frac{1}{k_B T} \right) \exp \left(-\frac{E}{k_B T} \right) &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow \frac{1}{2\epsilon_p^{1/2}} - \frac{\epsilon_p^{1/2}}{k_B T} &= 0 \\ \Rightarrow \frac{\epsilon_p^{1/2}}{k_B T} &= \frac{1}{2\epsilon_p^{1/2}} \\ \Rightarrow \epsilon_p &= \frac{1}{2} k_B T \end{aligned}$$

- We find that $\epsilon_{\text{avg}} = 3\epsilon_p$.
- At any given temperature, ϵ_{avg} and ϵ_p are the same for all gases.

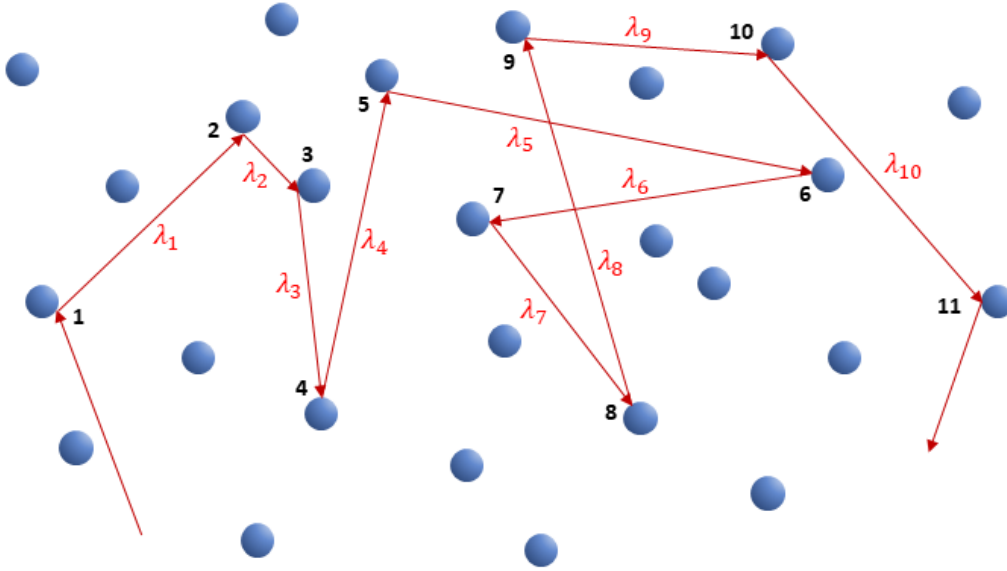
Exercises

1. In a nuclear fusion reactor, deuterium nuclei fuse if their average energy is 0.72 MeV. Calculate the temperature required for nuclear fusion to occur.
2. Nitrogen molecules obey Maxwellian distribution law and their mean energy is 15.6×10^{-21} J. Calculate their average speed.

5 Molecular collisions

5.1 Mean free path

A gas attains thermal equilibrium after successive molecular collisions. We define *free path* as the distance covered by a particle between successive collisions. In the figure below, the paths taken by a gas molecule between collisions is shown. For instance, λ_1 is the free path between collisions 1 and 2. Similarly λ_2 is the free path between collisions 2 and 3, and so on.



The *mean free path* λ of a gas is the average distance travelled by a molecule between two successive collisions. Suppose a molecule undergoes N collisions, then we have

$$\begin{aligned}\lambda &= \frac{\text{total distance travelled}}{\text{total number of collisions}} \\ &= \frac{\lambda_1 + \lambda_2 + \dots + \lambda_N}{N} \\ \Rightarrow \lambda &= \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^N \lambda_i\end{aligned}\quad (1)$$

If T is the total time taken by a molecule to undergo N collisions and $\langle v \rangle$ is the average molecular speed, then we have

$$\sum_{i=1}^N \lambda_i = \langle v \rangle T$$

Then equation (1) becomes

$$\lambda = \frac{\langle v \rangle T}{N}\quad (2)$$

Now, the mean time between two successive collisions can be obtained as

$$\tau = \frac{T}{N}$$

Then, equation (2) becomes

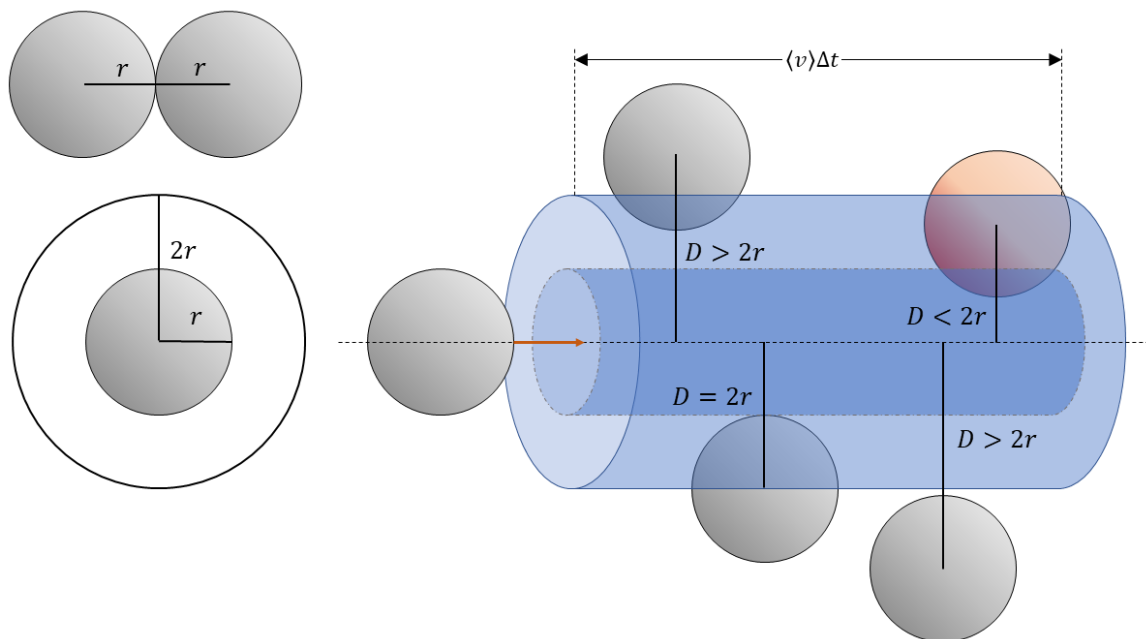
$$\lambda = \langle v \rangle \tau = \frac{\langle v \rangle}{P_c} \quad (3)$$

where the collision frequency $P_c = \frac{1}{\tau}$ measures the average number of collisions per unit time.

5.2 Estimation of mean free path

5.2.1 Zeroth order approximation

In this approximation, it is assumed that all molecules of the gas are immobile, except for one.



If r is the radius of a molecule, then for a collision to occur, the centre-to-centre distance between the moving and stationary molecules would be equal to its diameter $d = 2r$.

We may visualize this as if the moving molecule carries with it a circular disc of radius d . Therefore, in time Δt , it can be thought of as sweeping out a cylinder of cross sectional area πd^2 and length $\langle v \rangle \Delta t$.

Collisions would occur only with molecules whose centres lie within this cylinder.

We define the microscopic collision cross-section σ as

$$\sigma = \pi d^2$$

During the time interval Δt , the molecule would collide with all other molecules whose centres lie within the cylinder of volume

$$\Delta V = \pi d^2 \langle v \rangle \Delta t$$

If n is the number density of the gas, then the total number of molecules contained within the volume ΔV is

$$\begin{aligned}\Delta N &= n\Delta V \\ \Rightarrow \Delta N &= n\pi d^2 \langle v \rangle \Delta t\end{aligned}$$

But ΔN above is also the number of collisions experienced by the moving molecule in time Δt . So we can obtain the collision frequency as

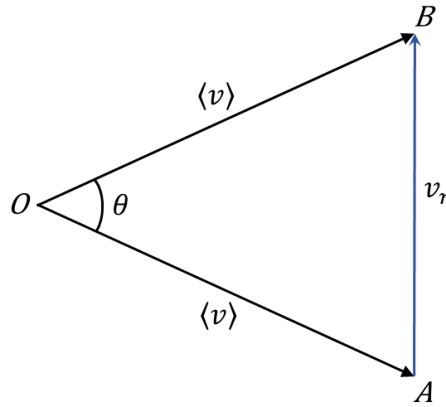
$$\begin{aligned}P_c &= \frac{\Delta N}{\Delta t} = n\pi d^2 \langle v \rangle \\ \Rightarrow \boxed{P_c &= n\sigma \langle v \rangle}\end{aligned}$$

This gives us the mean free path to be

$$\begin{aligned}\lambda &= \frac{\langle v \rangle}{P_c} = \frac{\cancel{\langle v \rangle}}{n\sigma \cancel{\langle v \rangle}} \\ \Rightarrow \boxed{\lambda &= \frac{1}{n\sigma}}\end{aligned}$$

5.2.2 First order approximation

In this approximation, the motion of all the molecules are taken into account.



Consider two molecules moving with average speed $\langle v \rangle$ along OA and OB with angle θ between them. Let v_r be the relative speed between the molecules. Then we have

$$\begin{aligned}v_r &= [\langle v \rangle^2 + \langle v \rangle^2 - 2\langle v \rangle^2 \cos \theta]^{1/2} \\ \Rightarrow v_r &= [2\langle v \rangle^2 (1 - \cos \theta)]^{1/2}\end{aligned}\tag{4}$$

We know that

$$\begin{aligned}\cos 2\theta &= 1 - 2\sin^2 \theta \\ \Rightarrow 1 - \cos 2\theta &= 2\sin^2 \theta \\ \Rightarrow 1 - \cos \theta &= 2\sin^2 \left(\frac{\theta}{2}\right) \quad [\text{Setting } \theta \rightarrow \theta/2]\end{aligned}$$

Therefore, equation (4) becomes

$$\begin{aligned} v_r &= [2 \langle v \rangle^2 2 \sin^2(\theta/2)]^{1/2} \\ \Rightarrow v_r &= 2 \langle v \rangle \sin\left(\frac{\theta}{2}\right) \end{aligned} \quad (5)$$

To find the average value of v_r , we integrate equation (5) over all solid angles, i.e.

$$\begin{aligned} \langle v_r \rangle &= \frac{1}{4\pi} \int_0^{4\pi} v_r d\Omega \\ &= \frac{1}{4\pi} \int_{\theta=0}^{\pi} \int_{\phi=0}^{2\pi} v_r \sin \theta d\theta d\phi \quad [\because d\Omega = \sin \theta d\theta d\phi] \\ &= \frac{1}{4\pi} \left[\int_0^{2\pi} d\phi \right] \int_0^{\pi} v_r \sin \theta d\theta \\ &= \frac{1}{4\pi} \times 2\pi \int_0^{\pi} v_r \sin \theta d\theta \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \int_0^{\pi} \left[2 \langle v \rangle \sin\left(\frac{\theta}{2}\right) \right] \sin \theta d\theta \quad [\text{Using eqn. (5)}] \\ &= \langle v \rangle \int_0^{\pi} \sin \theta \sin \frac{\theta}{2} d\theta \\ &= \langle v \rangle \int_0^{\pi} \left(2 \sin \frac{\theta}{2} \cos \frac{\theta}{2} \right) \sin \frac{\theta}{2} d\theta \\ \Rightarrow \langle v_r \rangle &= 2 \langle v \rangle \int_0^{\pi} \sin^2 \frac{\theta}{2} \cos \frac{\theta}{2} d\theta \end{aligned} \quad (6)$$

To evaluate the integral on the RHS of equation (6), we make the substitution:

$$\begin{aligned} x &= \sin \frac{\theta}{2} \\ \Rightarrow dx &= \frac{1}{2} \cos \frac{\theta}{2} d\theta \\ \Rightarrow \cos \frac{\theta}{2} d\theta &= 2 dx \end{aligned}$$

Then for the limits, we have

At $\theta = 0$, we have

$$x = \sin 0 = 0$$

At $\theta = \pi$, we have

$$x = \sin \frac{\pi}{2} = 1$$

Then we have

$$\begin{aligned}\int_0^\pi \sin^2 \frac{\theta}{2} \cos \frac{\theta}{2} d\theta &= \int_0^1 (x^2)(2 dx) \\ &= 2 \int_0^1 x^2 dx = 2 \left. \frac{x^3}{3} \right|_0^1 = \frac{2}{3}\end{aligned}$$

Hence, from equation (6), we get

$$\begin{aligned}\langle v_r \rangle &= 2 \langle v \rangle \times \frac{2}{3} \\ \Rightarrow \langle v_r \rangle &= \frac{4}{3} \langle v \rangle\end{aligned}$$

Then the collision frequency gets modified from that in the zeroth order approximation as

$$\begin{aligned}P_c &= n\sigma \langle v_r \rangle \\ \Rightarrow P_c &= \frac{4}{3} n\sigma \langle v \rangle\end{aligned}\tag{7}$$

Equation (7) shows that when we take into account the motion of the other molecules, the collision frequency increases.

This also gives us the modified mean free path (or *Clausius mean free path*) to be

$$\begin{aligned}\lambda_{Cl} &= \frac{\langle v \rangle}{P_c} \\ &= \frac{\langle v \rangle}{\frac{4}{3} n\sigma \langle v \rangle} \\ \Rightarrow \lambda_{Cl} &= \frac{3}{4n\sigma} = \frac{0.75}{n\sigma}\end{aligned}\tag{8}$$

As expected, equation (8) shows that when the motion of the other molecules are taken into account, the mean free path decreases.

However, if we consider the Maxwellian distribution of velocities while computing $\langle v_r \rangle$, then we obtain the *Maxwell mean free path* as

$$\lambda_M = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}n\sigma} = \frac{0.707}{n\sigma}\tag{9}$$

5.3 Survival equation

Suppose N_0 is the number of molecules that start from a point. Then the number of molecules N that eventually reach a distance x after surviving collisions is given by the *survival equation* as

$$N(x) = N_0 \exp\left(-\frac{x}{\lambda}\right)$$

Exercises

1. A hydrogen molecule of radius 1.37×10^{-10} m moves with speed 1840 m s^{-1} . Calculate its
 - (a) Microscopic collision cross section
 - (b) Collision frequency
 - (c) Maxwell mean free pathTake $n = 3 \times 10^{25} \text{ m}^{-3}$.
2. A gas is assumed to obey Maxwell's law for distribution of velocities. If the mean free path is 2.85×10^{-7} m, calculate the
 - (a) Molecular diameter
 - (b) Number of collisions per unit distanceTake $n = 3 \times 10^{25} \text{ m}^{-3}$.
3. Helium gas is assumed to obey Maxwell's distribution of velocities. The molecular diameter of atoms of helium is 10^{-10} m. One mole of the gas occupies 20 litre at 20 K. Calculate the mean free path of the molecules, and the collision frequency. Given that $R = 8.4 \text{ J mol}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1}$ and $N_A = 6.023 \times 10^{23} \text{ mol}^{-1}$.

6 Transport phenomena in ideal gases

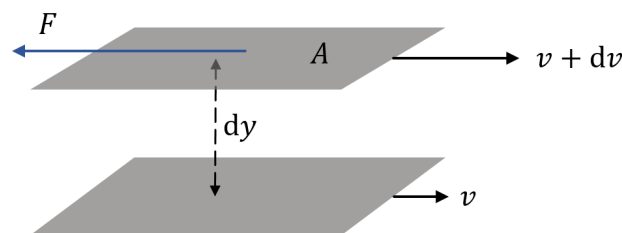
A gas molecule has finite mass and random thermal motion. Hence it possesses momentum as well as kinetic energy. Therefore, when a gas moves across different parts of a container, it can transport matter, energy or momentum.

In an equilibrium state, there is no net transfer of matter, energy or momentum. However, if, in a non-equilibrium state, there is macroscopic motion of the gas in a particular direction, the following three cases may occur:

1. *Different parts of the gas move with different velocities.*
 - Leads to relative motion between different layers of the gas.
 - Hence, molecules crossing from faster moving layers transport greater momentum than those crossing from slower moving layers.
 - The net transport of momentum in a given direction of motion across an imaginary plane is characterized by the *coefficient of viscosity* η .
2. *Different parts of the gas are at different temperatures.*
 - Molecules moving from regions of higher temperature to regions of lower temperature will carry greater thermal energy.
 - This gives rise to thermal conduction, which is characterized by the thermal conductivity K .
3. *Different parts of the gas have different concentrations.*
 - Molecules migrating from regions of higher concentration to regions of lower concentration carry matter.
 - This gives rise to diffusion, which is characterized by the coefficient of diffusion D .

6.1 Viscosity: Transport of momentum

The property of a fluid by virtue of which it opposes the relative motion between adjacent layers is known as *viscosity*. The *coefficient of viscosity* η is defined as the tangential force per unit area when a unit velocity gradient exists in a direction perpendicular to the direction of motion.

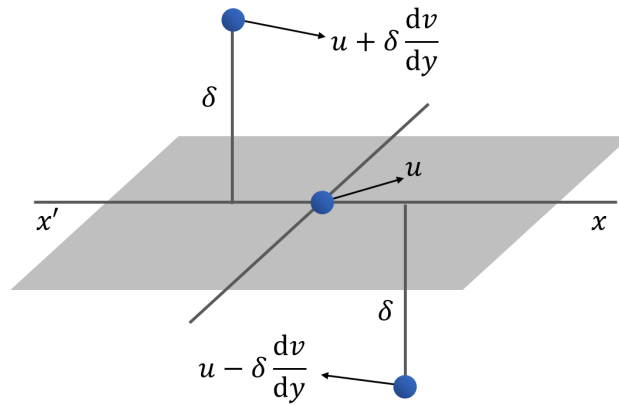


Consider two layers of the fluid which are separated by a distance dy , and moving with speeds v and $v + dv$. Then the velocity gradient between these layers is $\frac{dv}{dy}$. If F is the viscous force acting

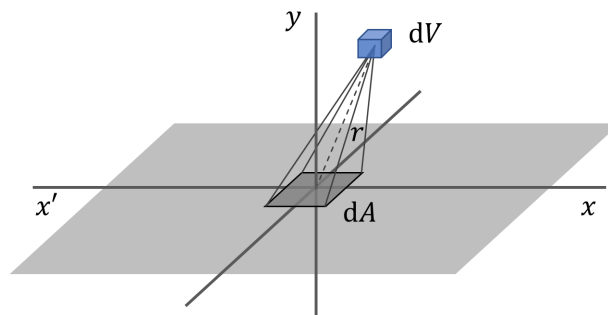
on an arbitrary area A , then we have

$$F = -\eta A \frac{dv}{dy} \quad (1)$$

Suppose a fluid has a velocity gradient of $\frac{dv}{dy}$ across its layers along the y -axis.



Then, if a molecule lying on the plane xx' has a speed u , then a molecule at a height δ above the xx' plane would have a speed of $u + \delta \frac{dv}{dy}$. Likewise, a molecule at a depth δ below xx' would have a speed of $u - \delta \frac{dv}{dy}$.



Consider an infinitesimal volume dV at a distance r from an infinitesimal area dA which lies on the xx' plane as shown above.

If P_c is the collision frequency of the gas, then the average number of collisions per molecule in time dt is $P_c dt$.

For n being the number density of the gas, the number of molecules contained within the volume dV is $n dV$.

Hence we have

$$\begin{aligned} \left\{ \begin{array}{c} \text{Total count of} \\ \text{collisions occurring} \\ \text{within } dV \text{ in time } dt \end{array} \right\} &= \left\{ \begin{array}{c} \text{Collisions per} \\ \text{molecule} \\ \text{in time } dt \end{array} \right\} \times \left\{ \begin{array}{c} \text{Number of molecules} \\ \text{contained within } dV \end{array} \right\} \\ &= (P_c dt) \times (n dV) = P_c n dV dt \end{aligned}$$

Because each collision involves two molecules, the total number of collisions taking place within dV in time dt is $\frac{1}{2}P_c n dV dt$.

Now, each collision produces two free paths. Hence the number of free paths generated within the volume dV in time dt is $2 \times \frac{1}{2}P_c n dV dt = P_c n dV dt$.

The number of free paths, i.e. molecules, that are heading towards the area dA from the volume dV in time dt is simply the number of free paths confined within the solid angle subtended by dA at dV :

$$dn = \frac{d\Omega}{4\pi} P_c n dV dt$$

Also, the solid angle subtended by the area dA at the volume dV is given by

$$d\Omega = \frac{dA \cos \theta}{r^2}$$

where θ is the angle between r and the y axis. So, this gives us

$$dn = P_c n \frac{dA \cos \theta}{4\pi r^2} dV dt$$

Hence, the number of molecules that will reach dA from dV is given by the survival equation to be

$$\begin{aligned} dN &= dn \exp\left(-\frac{r}{\lambda}\right) \\ &= \left(P_c n \frac{dA \cos \theta}{4\pi r^2} dV dt\right) \exp\left(-\frac{r}{\lambda}\right) \\ \Rightarrow dN &= \frac{P_c n \cos \theta}{4\pi r^2} dA dV dt \exp\left(-\frac{r}{\lambda}\right) \end{aligned}$$

In spherical polar coordinates, the volume element becomes

$$dV = 2\pi r^2 \sin \theta d\theta dr$$

Hence, we have

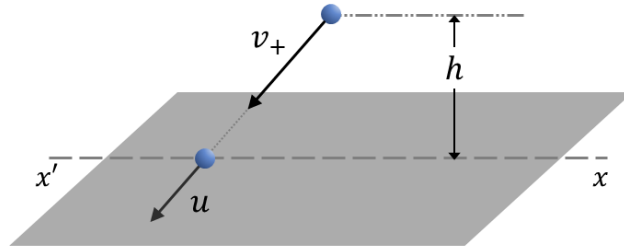
$$\begin{aligned} dN &= \frac{P_c n \cos \theta}{4\pi r^2} dA (2\pi r^2 \sin \theta d\theta dr) dt \exp\left(-\frac{r}{\lambda}\right) \\ &= \frac{1}{2} P_c n dA dt \sin \theta \cos \theta \exp\left(-\frac{r}{\lambda}\right) d\theta dr \end{aligned}$$

To calculate the total number of molecules crossing dA in time dt from the upper half-space above xx' , we integrate the above expression over r (from 0 to ∞) and over θ (from 0 to $\pi/2$) as follows

$$\begin{aligned} N &= \frac{1}{2} P_c n dA dt \underbrace{\int_0^\infty \exp\left(-\frac{r}{\lambda}\right) dr}_{=\lambda} \underbrace{\int_0^{\pi/2} \sin \theta \cos \theta d\theta}_{=1/2} \\ \Rightarrow N &= \frac{\lambda}{4} P_c n dA dt \\ &= \frac{\lambda \langle v \rangle}{4 \lambda} n dA dt \\ \Rightarrow \frac{N}{dA dt} &= \frac{1}{4} n \langle v \rangle \end{aligned}$$

The above expression gives us the number of molecules reaching the xx' plane per unit area per unit time.

We now calculate the total momentum transported by molecules above the xx' plane after making its last collision at a height of h .



6.1.1 Zeroth order approximation

In this approximation, the height of last collision above xx' is assumed to be one mean free path, i.e. $h = \lambda$. Then the speed of a molecule after its last collision is

$$v_+ = u + h \frac{dv}{dy}$$

$$\Rightarrow v_+ = u + \lambda \frac{dv}{dy}$$

where u is the speed of the molecule at the xx' plane.

Hence, the momentum transported to the xx' plane from above by a single molecule is

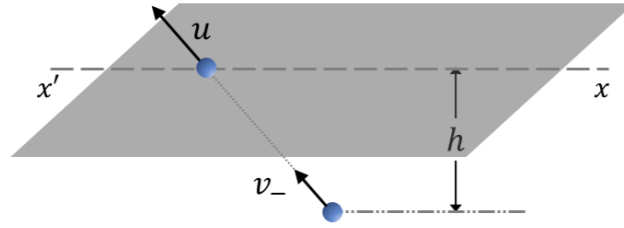
$$\begin{aligned} \Delta p_+ &= m u - m v_+ \\ &= m u - m \left[u + \lambda \frac{dv}{dy} \right] \\ &= m u - m u - m \lambda \frac{dv}{dy} \\ \Rightarrow \Delta p_+ &= -m \lambda \frac{dv}{dy} \end{aligned}$$

Then the net momentum transported to the xx' plane per unit area per unit time by molecules from above is

$$\begin{aligned} P_+ &= \left(\frac{N}{dA dt} \right) \times (\Delta p_+) \\ &= \left(\frac{1}{4} n \langle v \rangle \right) \times \left(-m \lambda \frac{dv}{dy} \right) \\ \Rightarrow P_+ &= -\frac{1}{4} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda \frac{dv}{dy} \end{aligned}$$

Likewise, for molecules below the xx' plane at a depth $h = \lambda$, the speed is

$$v_- = u - \lambda \frac{dv}{dy}$$



The momentum transported by a single molecule from below is

$$\begin{aligned}
 \Delta p_- &= m u - m v_- \\
 &= m u - m \left[u - \lambda \frac{dv}{dy} \right] \\
 &= m u - m u + m \lambda \frac{dv}{dy} \\
 \Rightarrow \Delta p_- &= m \lambda \frac{dv}{dy}
 \end{aligned}$$

This gives the net momentum transported to the $x x'$ plane per unit area per unit time by molecules from below to be

$$P_- = \frac{1}{4} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda \frac{dv}{dy}$$

Therefore, the net momentum transported per unit area per unit time, across the $x x'$ plane is

$$\begin{aligned}
 P &= P_+ - P_- \\
 &= \left(-\frac{1}{4} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda \frac{dv}{dy} \right) - \left(\frac{1}{4} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda \frac{dv}{dy} \right) \\
 \Rightarrow P &= -\frac{1}{2} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda \frac{dv}{dy} \quad (2)
 \end{aligned}$$

This manifests as the viscous force, which is the momentum transported per unit time. Hence we must have

$$\begin{aligned}
 P &= \frac{F}{A} \\
 \Rightarrow P &= -\eta \frac{dv}{dy} \quad [\text{using eqn. (1)}] \quad (3)
 \end{aligned}$$

Comparing equations (2) and (3), we obtain the zeroth order approximation of the coefficient of viscosity to be

$$\eta_0 = \frac{1}{2} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda$$

Using the Clausius mean free path, i.e. $\lambda = \lambda_{\text{Cl}} = \frac{3}{4n\sigma}$, we get

$$\eta_0 = \frac{1}{2} m n \langle v \rangle \frac{3}{4n\sigma}$$

$$\Rightarrow \boxed{\eta_0 = \frac{3m}{8\sigma} \langle v \rangle}$$

6.1.2 First order approximation

In this approximation, the exact average height of the last collision above xx' is computed and found to be

$$h = \frac{2}{3} \lambda$$

Using this value of h and proceeding in the same manner as previously, we obtain the first order approximation of the coefficient of viscosity to be

$$\eta_1 = \frac{1}{3} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda \quad (4)$$

Using the Clausius mean free path, i.e. $\lambda = \lambda_{\text{Cl}} = \frac{3}{4n\sigma}$ in equation (4), we get

$$\boxed{\eta_1 = \frac{m}{4\sigma} \langle v \rangle}$$

Finally, using the Maxwell mean free path, i.e. $\lambda = \lambda_{\text{M}} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}n\sigma}$ in equation (4), we get

$$\boxed{\eta_M = \frac{m}{3\sqrt{2}\sigma} \langle v \rangle}$$

Because the collision cross-section is $\sigma = \pi d^2$, then the above equation can be written as

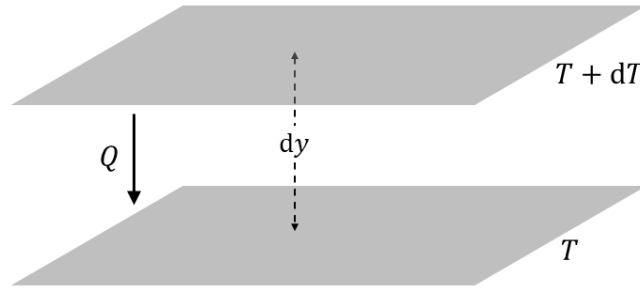
$$\eta_M = \frac{m \langle v \rangle}{3\sqrt{2}\pi d^2}$$

$$\Rightarrow \boxed{d = \sqrt{\frac{m \langle v \rangle}{3\sqrt{2}\pi \eta_M}}}$$

In the above equation, the quantities m , $\langle v \rangle$ and η_M are measurable. Therefore, this allows us to use these measurements to estimate the *molecular diameter*, which is a microscopic property.

6.2 Thermal conductivity: Transport of energy

The transport of energy is treated in a similar manner as viscosity.

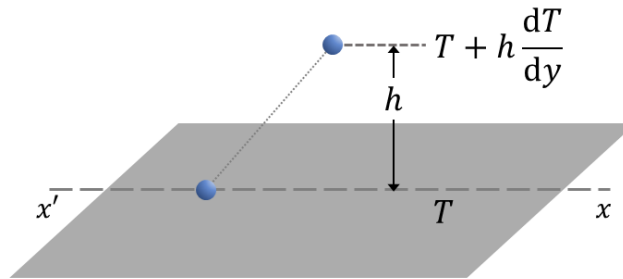


There is a temperature gradient across the different layers of the gas, which we denote as $\frac{dT}{dy}$. Because heat always transports from higher to lower temperature, the thermal energy flowing per unit area per unit time is opposite to the temperature gradient, i.e.

$$Q \propto -\frac{dT}{dy}$$

$$\Rightarrow Q = -\kappa \frac{dT}{dy} \quad (1)$$

where κ is the *thermal conductivity* of the fluid.



Suppose the temperature at a layer x x' is T . If f denotes the degrees of freedom of a gas molecule then, from the law of equipartition of energy, the average thermal energy of a gas molecule on this layer is

$$\varepsilon = \frac{f}{2} k_B T$$

Hence, at a height h above this layer, the temperature would be $T + h \frac{dT}{dy}$. Then the average thermal energy of a gas molecule at this height is

$$\varepsilon_+ = \frac{f}{2} k_B \left(T + h \frac{dT}{dy} \right)$$

Then the thermal energy transported from above by a single molecule is

$$\begin{aligned}
 \Delta \varepsilon_+ &= \varepsilon - \varepsilon_+ \\
 &= \left[\frac{f}{2} k_B T \right] - \left[\frac{f}{2} k_B \left(T + h \frac{dT}{dy} \right) \right] \\
 &= \cancel{\frac{f}{2} k_B T} - \cancel{\frac{f}{2} k_B T} - \frac{f}{2} k_B h \frac{dT}{dy} \\
 \Delta \varepsilon_+ &= -\frac{f}{2} k_B h \frac{dT}{dy}
 \end{aligned}$$

As discussed earlier, the number of gas molecules reaching the xx' plane per unit area per unit time is

$$\frac{N}{dA dt} = \frac{1}{4} n \langle v \rangle$$

Hence the total thermal energy transported from above per unit area per unit time is

$$\begin{aligned}
 Q_+ &= \left(\frac{1}{4} n \langle v \rangle \right) \times \left(-\frac{f}{2} k_B h \frac{dT}{dy} \right) \\
 \Rightarrow Q_+ &= -\frac{f}{8} n \langle v \rangle k_B h \frac{dT}{dy}
 \end{aligned}$$

Likewise, we obtain the thermal energy transported from below per unit area per unit time to be

$$Q_- = \frac{f}{8} n \langle v \rangle k_B h \frac{dT}{dy}$$

Hence, the net transport rate for thermal energy is

$$\begin{aligned}
 Q &= Q_+ - Q_- \\
 &= \left(-\frac{f}{8} n \langle v \rangle k_B h \frac{dT}{dy} \right) - \left(\frac{f}{8} n \langle v \rangle k_B h \frac{dT}{dy} \right) \\
 \Rightarrow Q &= -\frac{f}{4} n \langle v \rangle k_B h \frac{dT}{dy} \tag{2}
 \end{aligned}$$

Choosing the first order approximation for h , i.e. $h = \frac{2}{3} \lambda$, equation (2) becomes

$$\begin{aligned}
 Q &= -\frac{f}{4} n \langle v \rangle k_B \left(\frac{2}{3} \lambda \right) \frac{dT}{dy} \\
 \Rightarrow Q &= -\frac{f}{6} n \langle v \rangle k_B \lambda \frac{dT}{dy} \tag{3}
 \end{aligned}$$

Comparing equations (1) and (3), we finally obtain

$$\kappa = \frac{f}{6} n \langle v \rangle \lambda k_B$$

Now, we know that the molar specific heat capacity of a gas at constant volume is

$$C_V = \frac{f}{2} k_B$$

Then we obtain the thermal conductivity to be

$$\kappa = \frac{1}{3} C_V n \langle v \rangle \lambda$$

6.2.1 Relation between thermal conductivity and viscosity

We have obtained

$$\begin{aligned} \kappa &= \frac{f}{6} n \langle v \rangle \lambda k_B \\ \eta &= \frac{1}{3} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda \end{aligned}$$

Hence, we have

$$\frac{\kappa}{\eta} = \frac{\frac{f}{6} n \langle v \rangle \lambda k_B}{\frac{1}{3} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda} = \frac{f}{2} \frac{k_B}{m}$$

If the molar mass of a gas is M , then we can write the molecular mass as $m = \frac{M}{N_A}$. Then the above becomes

$$\frac{\kappa}{\eta} = \frac{f}{2} \frac{k_B N_A}{M}$$

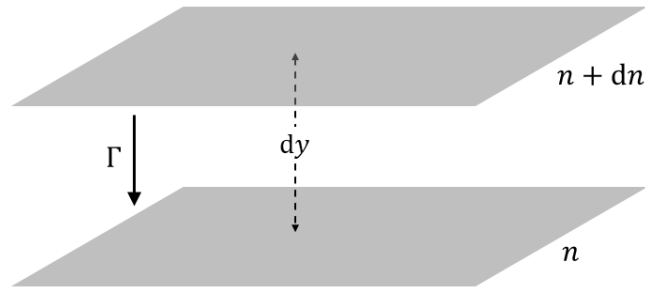
Also, we know that the universal gas constant is $R = k_B N_A$. And so

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\kappa}{\eta} &= \frac{f}{2} \frac{R}{M} \\ \Rightarrow \frac{\kappa}{\eta} &= \frac{C_V}{M} \quad [\because C_V = f/2 R] \\ \Rightarrow \boxed{\frac{\kappa M}{\eta C_V} = 1} &\quad [\text{for all gases}] \end{aligned}$$

6.3 Diffusion: Transport of matter

The transport of matter is also treated in a similar manner as viscosity.

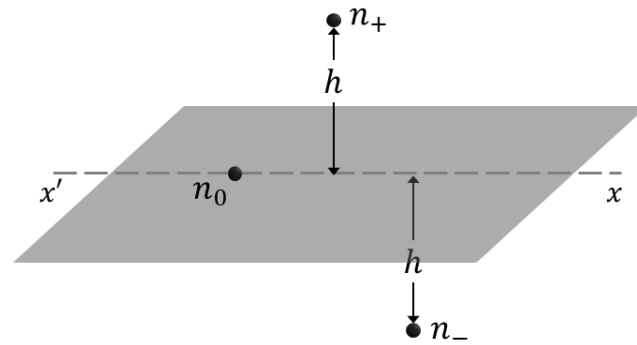
There is a concentration gradient across the different layers of the gas, which we denote as $\frac{dn}{dy}$. Because matter always transports from higher to lower concentration, the matter flow rate (i.e.



number of molecules crossing a reference plane per unit area per unit time) is opposite to the concentration gradient, i.e.

$$\begin{aligned}\Gamma &\propto -\frac{dn}{dy} \\ \Rightarrow \Gamma &= -D \frac{dn}{dy}\end{aligned}\quad (1)$$

where D is the *coefficient of diffusion* of the fluid.



Suppose the concentration at a layer $x x'$ is n_0 . At a height h above this layer, the concentration would be

$$n_+ = n_0 + h \frac{dn}{dy}$$

and at a depth h below this layer, the concentration would be

$$n_- = n_0 - h \frac{dn}{dy}$$

We know that the number of gas molecules reaching the $x x'$ plane per unit area per unit time is

$$\frac{N}{dA dt} = \frac{1}{4} n \langle v \rangle$$

Hence, the number of particles crossing $x x'$ per unit area per unit time from above is

$$\begin{aligned}\Gamma_+ &= \frac{1}{4} \langle v \rangle (n_0 - n_+) \\ &= \frac{1}{4} \langle v \rangle \left(n_0 - n_0 - h \frac{dn}{dy} \right) \\ \Rightarrow \Gamma_+ &= -\frac{1}{4} \langle v \rangle h \frac{dn}{dy}\end{aligned}$$

Likewise, the number of particles crossing $x x'$ per unit area per unit time from below is

$$\Gamma_- = \frac{1}{4} \langle v \rangle h \frac{dn}{dy}$$

Hence, the net particles transported per unit area per unit time is

$$\begin{aligned} \Gamma &= \Gamma_+ - \Gamma_- \\ &= \left(-\frac{1}{4} \langle v \rangle h \frac{dn}{dy} \right) - \left(\frac{1}{4} \langle v \rangle h \frac{dn}{dy} \right) \\ \Rightarrow \Gamma &= -\frac{1}{2} \langle v \rangle h \frac{dn}{dy} \end{aligned} \quad (2)$$

Choosing the first order approximation for h , i.e. $h = \frac{2}{3} \lambda$, equation (2) becomes

$$\begin{aligned} \Gamma &= -\frac{1}{2} \langle v \rangle \left(\frac{2}{3} \lambda \right) \frac{dn}{dy} \\ \Rightarrow \Gamma &= -\frac{1}{3} \langle v \rangle \lambda \frac{dn}{dy} \end{aligned} \quad (3)$$

Comparing equations (1) and (3), we finally obtain the coefficient of diffusion to be

$$\boxed{D = \frac{1}{3} \langle v \rangle \lambda}$$

6.3.1 Relation between diffusion and viscosity

We have obtained

$$\begin{aligned} D &= \frac{1}{3} \langle v \rangle \lambda \\ \eta &= \frac{1}{3} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda \end{aligned}$$

Hence, we have

$$\frac{D}{\eta} = \frac{\frac{1}{3} \langle v \rangle \lambda}{\frac{1}{3} m n \langle v \rangle \lambda} = \frac{1}{m n}$$

Now the mass density of a gas is $\rho = m n$. Then the above equation becomes

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{D}{\eta} &= \frac{1}{\rho} \\ \Rightarrow \boxed{\frac{D \rho}{\eta} = 1} & \quad [\text{for all gases}] \end{aligned}$$

Exercises

1. The coefficient of viscosity of helium gas at 27°C is 2×10^{-4} poise. Calculate the diameter of a helium molecule.
2. The coefficient of viscosity of oxygen gas at 15°C is $196 \mu\text{poise}$. Calculate the diameter of an oxygen molecule.
3. The molecules of a gas move with a mean speed of 450 ms^{-1} . If $\eta = 16.6 \times 10^{-6}$ poise, $\rho = 1.25 \text{ kg m}^{-3}$ and $n = 2.7 \times 10^{25} \text{ m}^{-3}$, calculate the mean free path and diameter of the gas molecules.
4. Calculate the thermal conductivity of a gas using the following data:

$$\rho = 1.6 \text{ kg m}^{-3}$$

$$\langle v \rangle = 480 \text{ ms}^{-1}$$

$$\lambda = 8 \times 10^{-8} \text{ m}$$

$$M = 32 \text{ kg mol}^{-1}$$

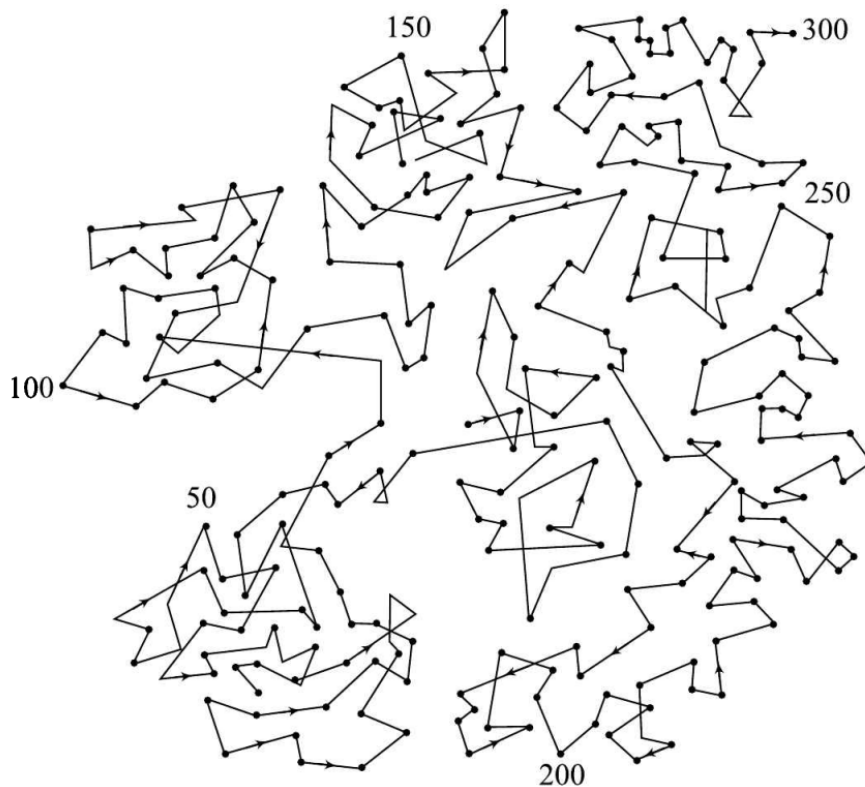
$$\gamma = 1.4$$

$$R = 8.31 \text{ kJ kmol}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1}$$

5. The coefficient of viscosity of helium gas is 18.6×10^{-6} poise, $M = 4 \text{ kg kmol}^{-1}$ and $C_V = 12.5 \times 10^3 \text{ J kmol}^{-1} \text{ K}^{-1}$. Calculate the thermal conductivity of helium at 0°C .
6. The coefficients of viscosity and diffusion for oxygen are 1.95×10^{-5} poise and $1.22 \times 10^{-5} \text{ m}^2 \text{ s}^{-1}$ respectively. If the average molecular speed is 440 ms^{-1} , calculate the density and mean free path of the gas.

7 Brownian motion

While the elementary kinetic theory successfully explains many observed properties of gases, the first experimental evidence for the existence of molecules and their continuous chaotic motion was provided by Robert Brown in 1827. He observed the motion of very small pollen grains suspended in water using a high power microscope. The suspended particles were seen to move completely haphazardly and execute perpetual movement. This irregular motion of the particles is termed *Brownian motion*.



7.1 Characteristics of Brownian motion

The observed characteristics of Brownian motion are as follows:

1. The motion is continuous, completely random and irregular.
2. No two particles execute the same motion.
3. Smaller particles execute faster and hence more noticeable motion.
4. The motion becomes more vigorous and lively when temperature is increased or a less viscous liquid is taken.
5. The movement is about the same in all directions.
6. The motion is independent of external influences.

7.2 Qualitative explanation for Brownian motion

The discovery of Brownian motion puzzled scientists for a long time, and at first, it was regarded as a property of organic matter. However, experiments proved conclusively that the motion is not due to any biological or chemical factor, establishing that small particles of inorganic matter suspended in both liquids and gases also execute Brownian motion. After discarding explanations based on surface tension, temperature non-homogeneity, and chemical or electrical action, it was proposed that Brownian motion is due to the bombardment of suspended particles by the molecules of the surrounding fluid.

For bigger particles, the forces due to molecular impacts almost completely balance. However, for smaller particles, molecular impacts do not exactly balance and the unbalanced force makes them move in a random manner.

Brownian motion provides a very useful picture of the gaseous state. One can suppose that like Brownian particles, gas molecules are in random motion and frequently collide with each other. Brownian motion is readily observed in gases because intermolecular forces are negligibly small.

7.2.1 Einstein's theory (1905)

- Approaches Brownian motion through statistical mechanics and thermodynamics, linking microscopic particle behavior to macroscopic fluid properties.
- Models the irregular movement as a random walk and connects it to the laws of diffusion.
- Establishes that the mean squared displacement of a particle is directly proportional to both the absolute temperature and the elapsed time ($\langle x^2 \rangle = 2D t$), offering a direct way to calculate Avogadro's number and prove the existence of atoms.

7.2.2 Langevin's theory (1908)

- Analyzes the phenomenon through direct Newtonian mechanics, focusing on the dynamic trajectory of a single particle.
- Models the interactions using Newton's second law by splitting the total force from the fluid into two distinct components: a macroscopic viscous drag that continuously resists motion, and a rapidly fluctuating, random stochastic force caused by molecular collisions.
- Arrives at the same physical conclusions as Einstein regarding particle displacement, but does so through a much more direct, mechanical framework that became the foundation for modern stochastic differential equations.